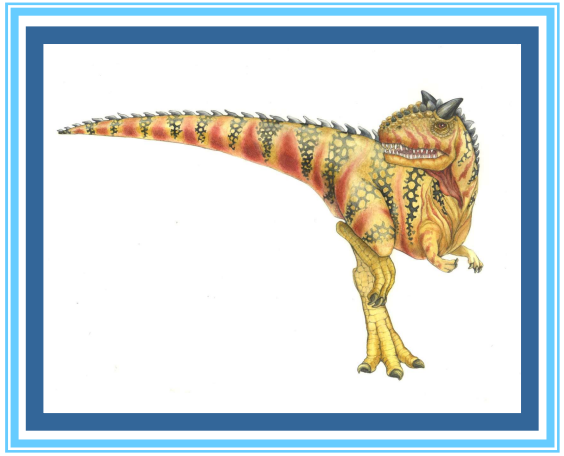
Chapter 3: Processes



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Outline

- Process Concept
- Process Scheduling
- Operations on Processes
- Interprocess Communication
- IPC in Shared-Memory Systems
- IPC in Message-Passing Systems
- Examples of IPC Systems
- Communication in Client-Server Systems

Objectives

- Identify the separate components of a process and illustrate how they are represented and scheduled in an operating system.
- Describe how processes are created and terminated in an operating system, including developing programs using the appropriate system calls that perform these operations.
- Describe and contrast interprocess communication using shared memory and message passing.
- Design programs that uses pipes and POSIX shared memory to perform interprocess communication.
- Describe client-server communication using sockets and remote procedure calls.
- Design kernel modules that interact with the Linux operating system.

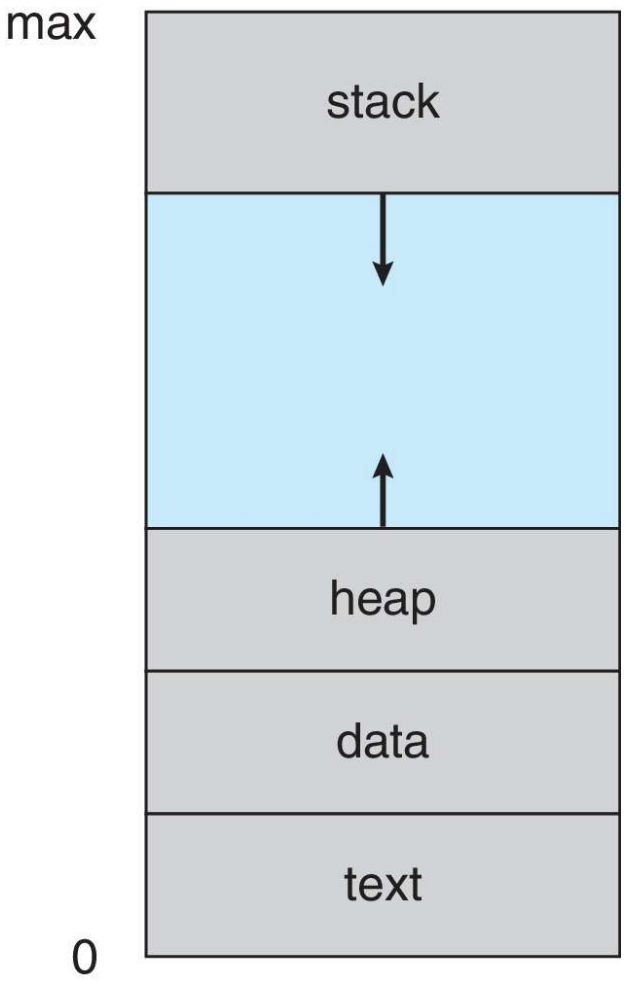
Process Concept

- An operating system executes a variety of programs that run as a process.
- **Process** – a program in execution; process execution must progress in sequential fashion. No parallel execution of instructions of a single process
- Multiple parts
  - The program code, also called **text section**
  - Current activity including **program counter**, processor registers
  - **Stack** containing temporary data
    - Function parameters, return addresses, local variables
  - **Data section** containing global variables
  - **Heap** containing memory dynamically allocated during run time

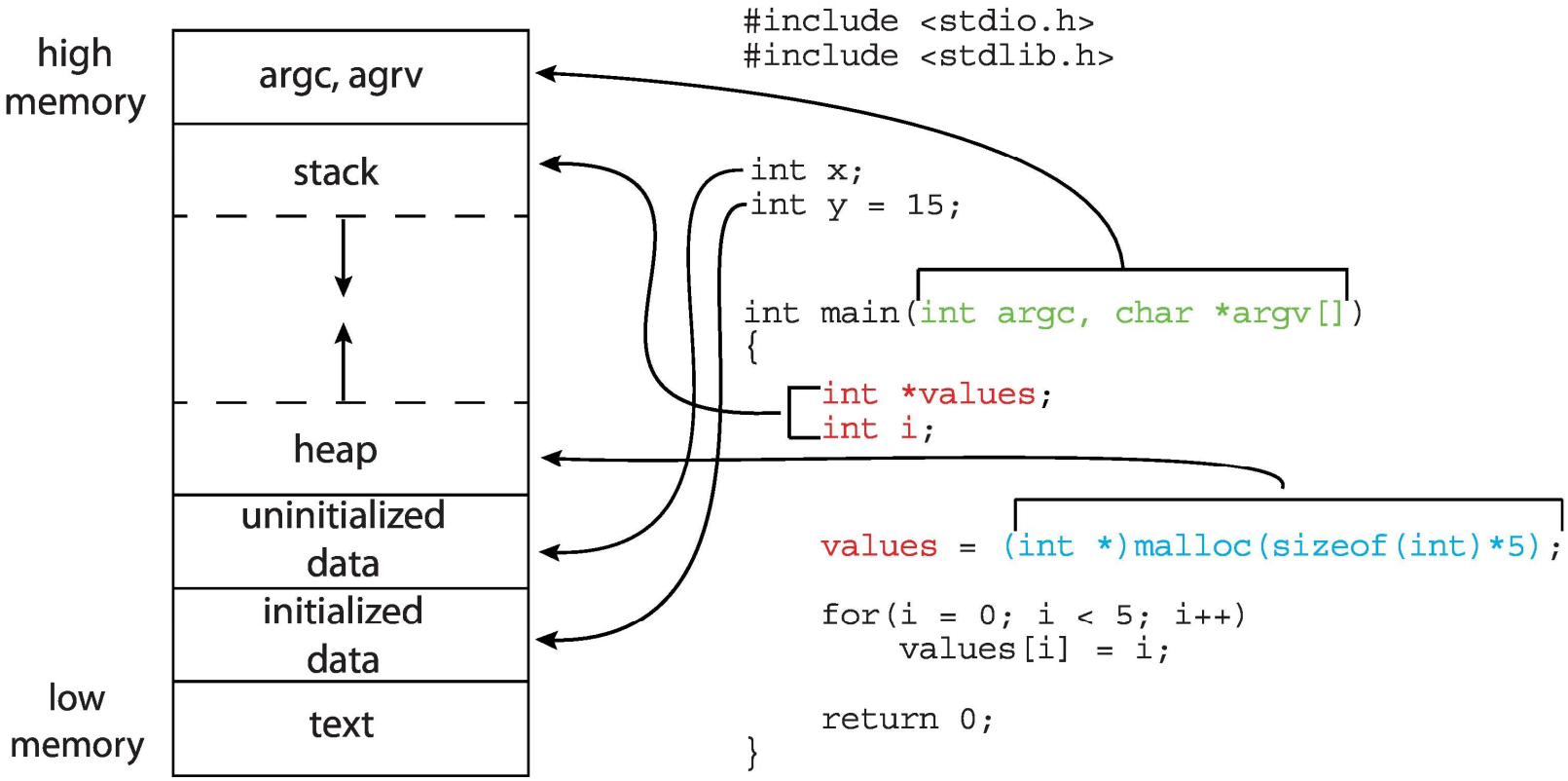
Process Concept (Cont.)

- Program is **passive** entity stored on disk (**executable file**); process is **active**
  - Program becomes process when an executable file is loaded into memory
- Execution of program started via GUI mouse clicks, command line entry of its name, etc.
- One program can be several processes
  - Consider multiple users executing the same program

Process in Memory



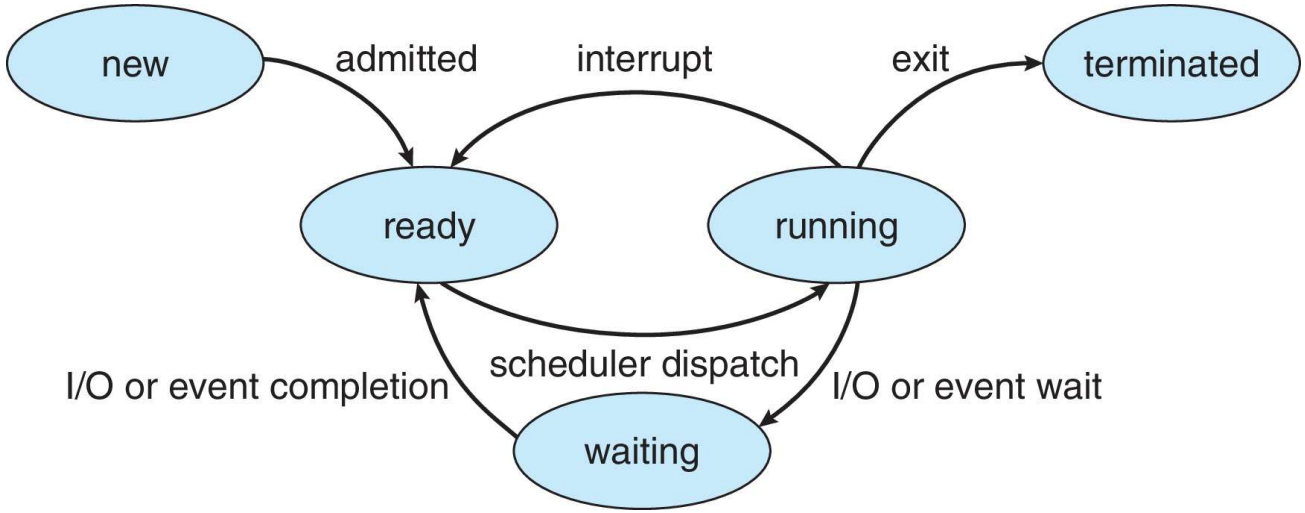
Memory Layout of a C Program



Process State

- As a process executes, it changes **state**
  - **New**: The process is being created
  - **Running**: Instructions are being executed
  - **Waiting**: The process is waiting for some event to occur
  - **Ready**: The process is waiting to be assigned to a processor
  - **Terminated**: The process has finished execution

Diagram of Process State



Process Control Block (PCB)

Information associated with each process(also called **task control block**)

- Process state – running, waiting, etc.
- Program counter – location of instruction to next execute
- CPU registers – contents of all process-centric registers
- CPU scheduling information- priorities, scheduling queue pointers
- Memory-management information – memory allocated to the process
- Accounting information – CPU used, clock time elapsed since start, time limits
- I/O status information – I/O devices allocated to process, list of open files

process state
process number
program counter
registers
memory limits
list of open files
• • •

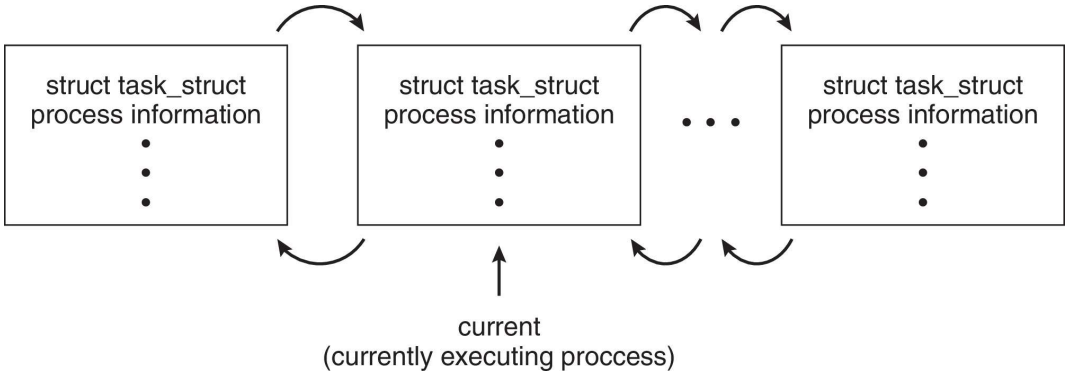
Threads

- So far, process has a single thread of execution
- Consider having multiple program counters per process
  - Multiple locations can execute at once
    - Multiple threads of control -> **threads**
- Must then have storage for thread details, multiple program counters in PCB
- Explore in detail in Chapter 4

Process Representation in Linux

Represented by the C structure `task_struct`

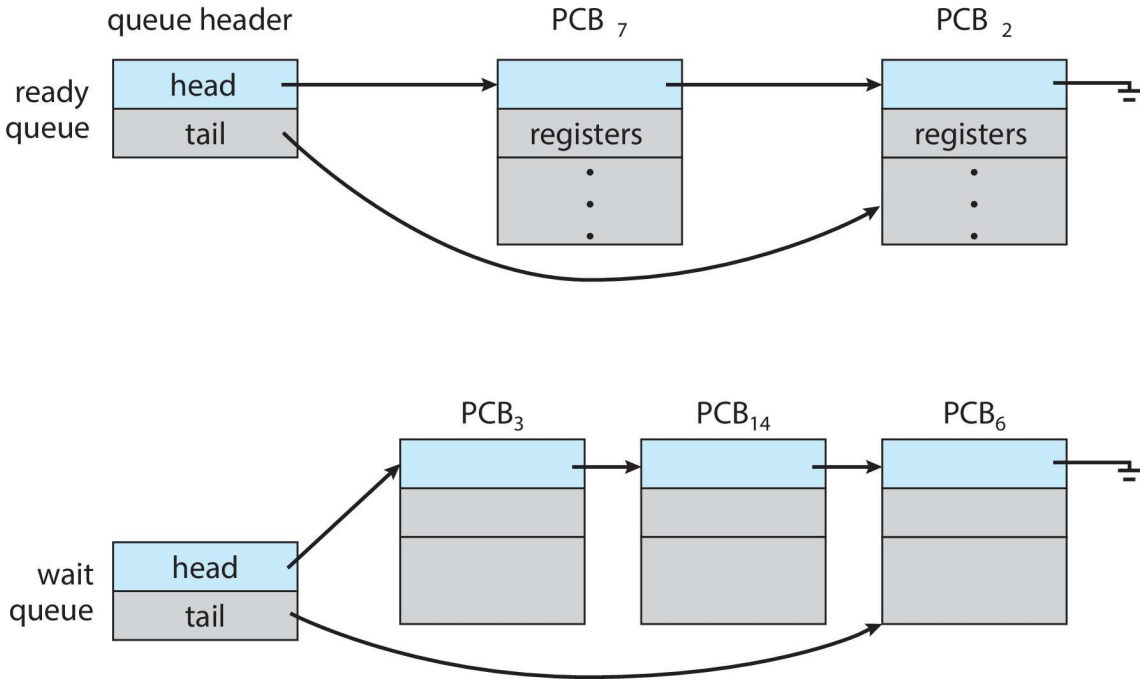
```
pid t_pid;                    /* process identifier */
long state;                   /* state of the process */
unsigned int time_slice       /* scheduling information */
struct task_struct *parent;/* this process's parent */
struct list_head children; /* this process's children */
struct files_struct *files;/* list of open files */
struct mm_struct *mm;         /* address space of this
process */
```



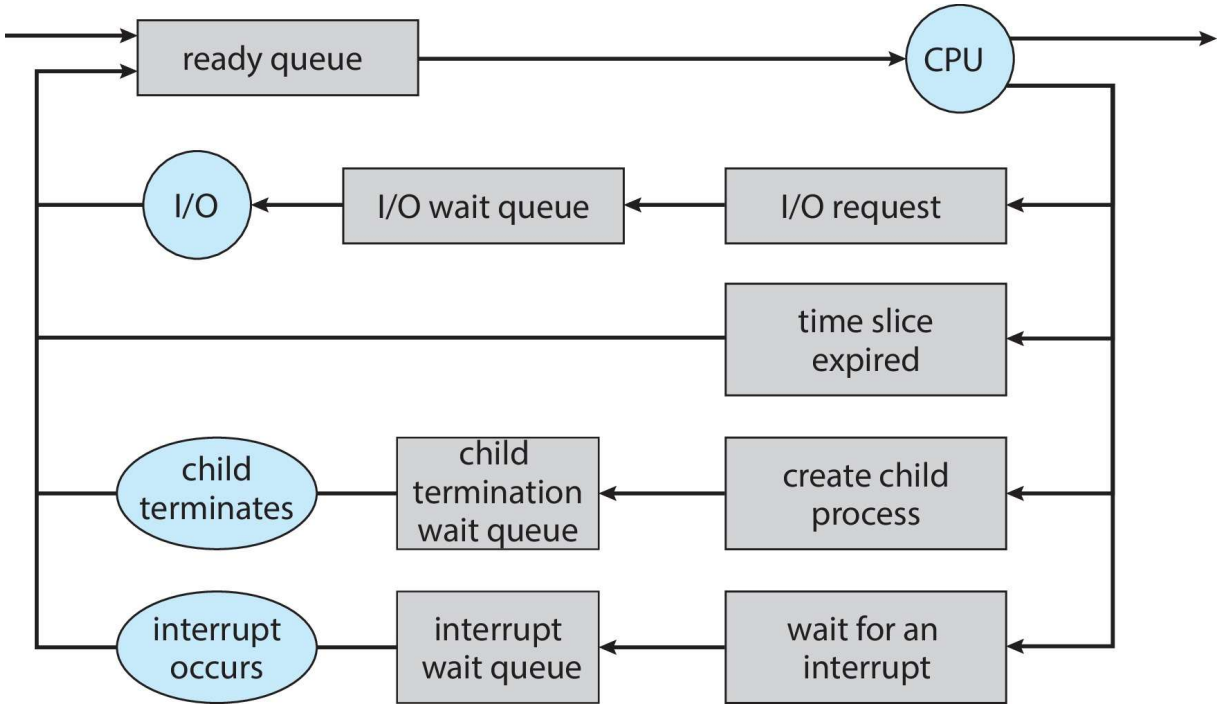
Process Scheduling

- **Process scheduler** selects among available processes for next execution on CPU core
- Goal -- Maximize CPU use, quickly switch processes onto CPU core
- Maintains **scheduling queues** of processes
  - **Ready queue** – set of all processes residing in main memory, ready and waiting to execute
  - **Wait queues** – set of processes waiting for an event (i.e., I/O)
  - Processes migrate among the various queues

Ready and Wait Queues

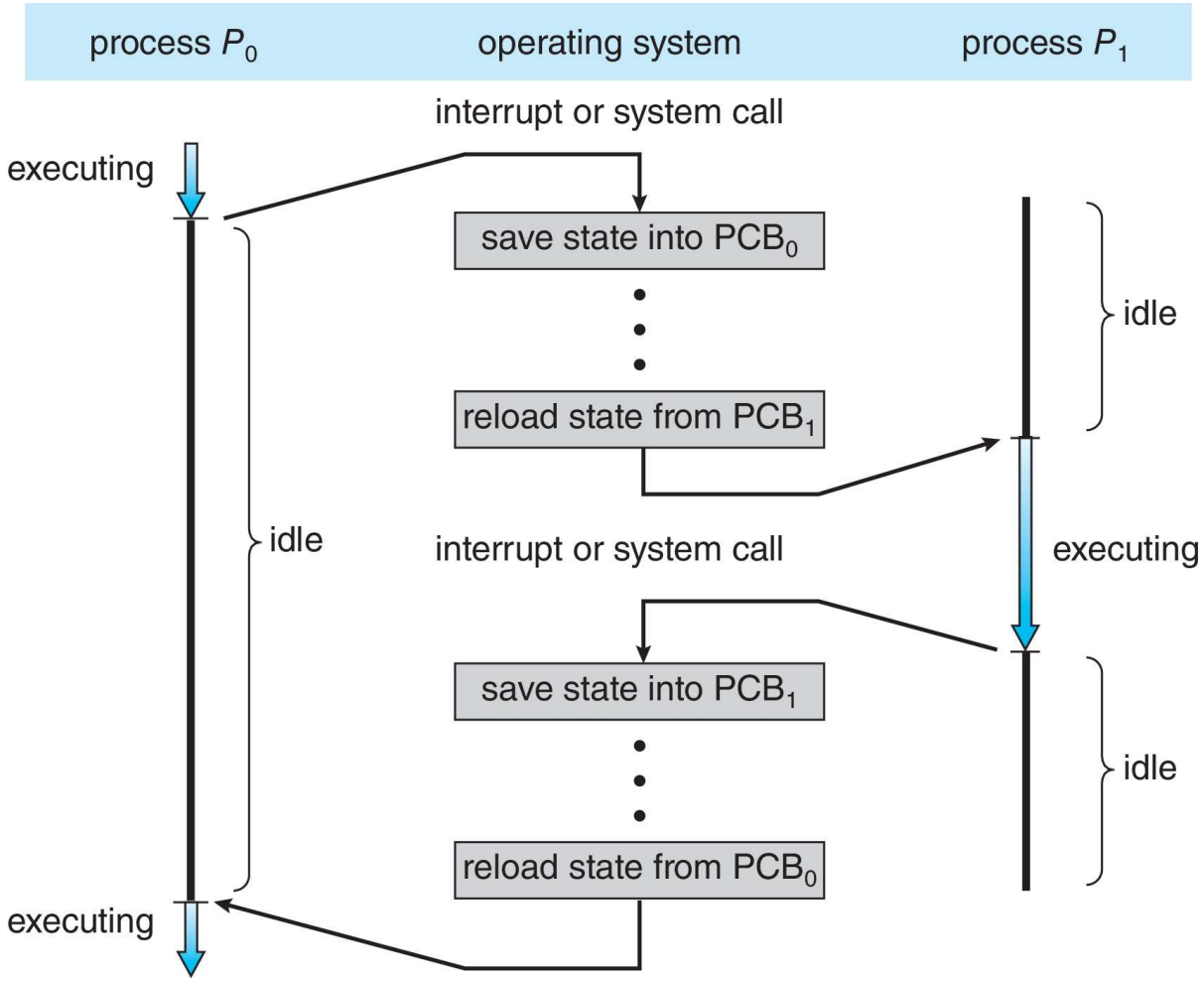


Representation of Process Scheduling



CPU Switch From Process to Process

A **context switch** occurs when the CPU switches from one process to another.



Context Switch

- When CPU switches to another process, the system must **save the state** of the old process and load the **saved state** for the new process via a **context switch**
- **Context** of a process represented in the PCB
- Context-switch time is pure overhead; the system does no useful work while switching
  - The more complex the OS and the PCB ➔ the longer the context switch
- Time dependent on hardware support
  - Some hardware provides multiple sets of registers per CPU ➔ multiple contexts loaded at once

Multitasking in Mobile Systems

- Some mobile systems (e.g., early version of iOS) allow only one process to run, others suspended
- Due to screen real estate, user interface limits iOS provides for a
  - Single **foreground** process- controlled via user interface
  - Multiple **background** processes– in memory, running, but not on the display, and with limits
  - Limits include single, short task, receiving notification of events, specific long-running tasks like audio playback
- Android runs foreground and background, with fewer limits
  - Background process uses a **service** to perform tasks
  - Service can keep running even if background process is suspended
  - Service has no user interface, small memory use

Operations on Processes

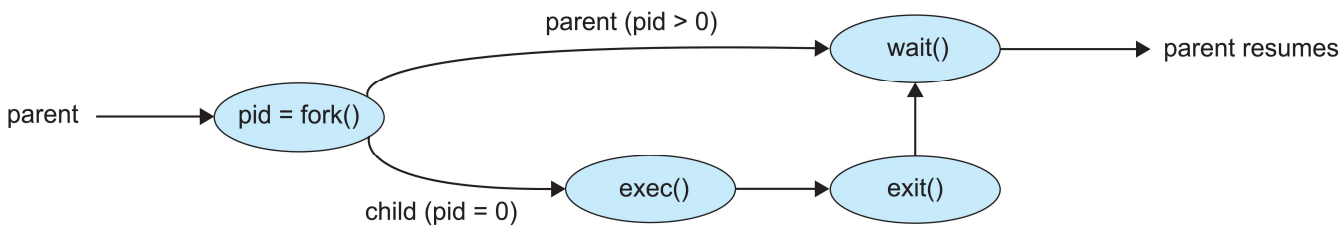
- System must provide mechanisms for:
  - Process creation
  - Process termination

Process Creation

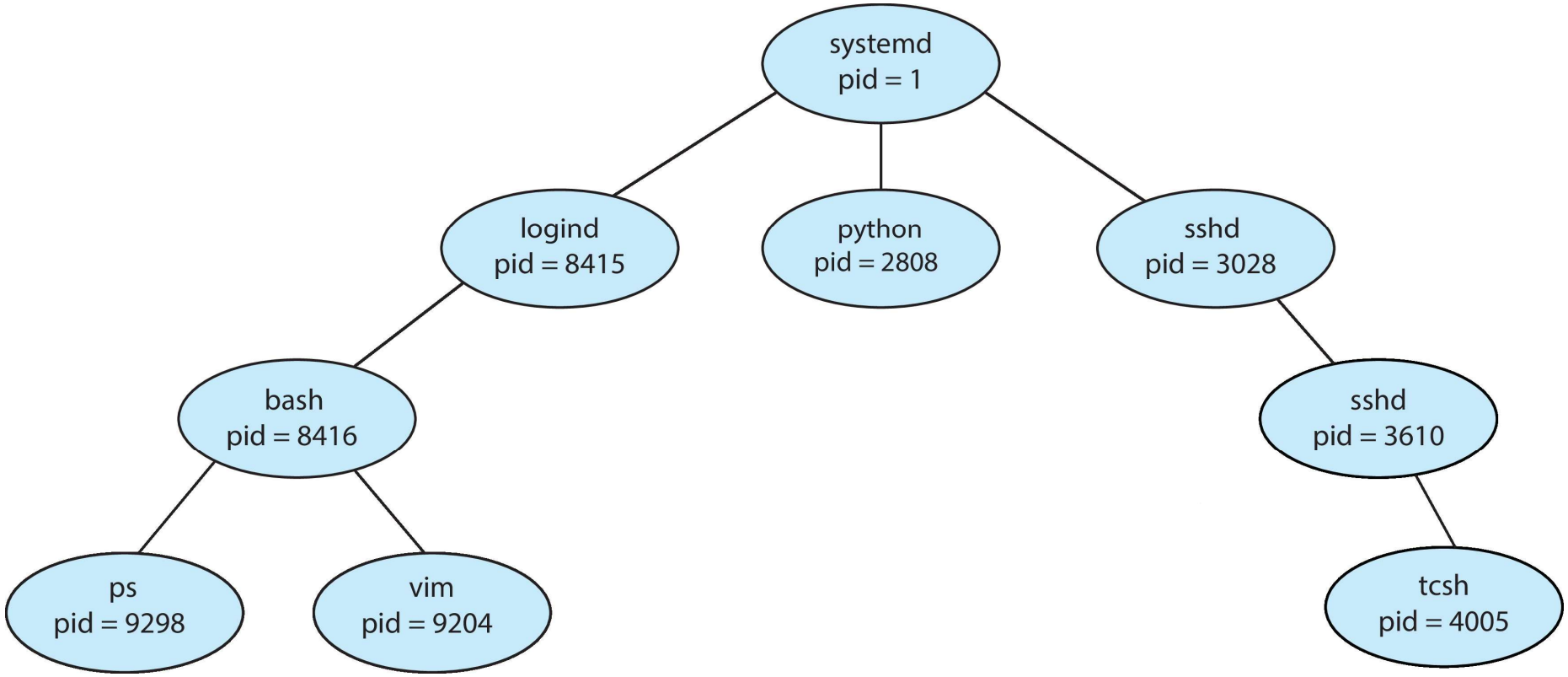
- **Parent** process create **children** processes, which, in turn create other processes, forming a **tree** of processes
- Generally, process identified and managed via a **process identifier** (**pid**)
- Resource sharing options
  - Parent and children share all resources
  - Children share subset of parent's resources
  - Parent and child share no resources
- Execution options
  - Parent and children execute concurrently
  - Parent waits until children terminate

Process Creation (Cont.)

- Address space
  - Child duplicate of parent
  - Child has a program loaded into it
- UNIX examples
  - **`fork()`** system call creates new process
  - **`exec()`** system call used after a **`fork()`** to replace the process' memory space with a new program
  - Parent process calls **`wait()`** waiting for the child to terminate



A Tree of Processes in Linux



C Program Forking Separate Process

```
#include <sys/types.h>
#include <stdio.h>
#include <unistd.h>

int main()
{
pid_t pid;

    /* fork a child process */
    pid = fork();

    if (pid < 0) { /* error occurred */
       fprintf(stderr, "Fork Failed");
       return 1;
    }
    else if (pid == 0) { /* child process */
       execlp("/bin/ls","ls",NULL);
    }
    else { /* parent process */
       /* parent will wait for the child to complete */
       wait(NULL);
       printf("Child Complete");
    }

    return 0;
}
```

Creating a Separate Process via Windows API

```
#include <stdio.h>
#include <windows.h>

int main(VOID)
{
STARTUPINFO si;
PROCESS_INFORMATION pi;

    /* allocate memory */
    ZeroMemory(&si, sizeof(si));
    si.cb = sizeof(si);
    ZeroMemory(&pi, sizeof(pi));

    /* create child process */
    if (!CreateProcess(NULL, /* use command line */
     "C:\\WINDOWS\\system32\\mspaint.exe", /* command */
     NULL, /* don't inherit process handle */
     NULL, /* don't inherit thread handle */
     FALSE, /* disable handle inheritance */
     0, /* no creation flags */
     NULL, /* use parent's environment block */
     NULL, /* use parent's existing directory */
     &si,
     &pi))
    {
      fprintf(stderr, "Create Process Failed");
      return -1;
    }
    /* parent will wait for the child to complete */
    WaitForSingleObject(pi.hProcess, INFINITE);
    printf("Child Complete");

    /* close handles */
    CloseHandle(pi.hProcess);
    CloseHandle(pi.hThread);
}
```

Process Termination

- Process executes last statement and then asks the operating system to delete it using the **`exit()`** system call.
  - Returns status data from child to parent (via **`wait()`**)
  - Process' resources are deallocated by operating system
- Parent may terminate the execution of children processes using the **`abort()`** system call. Some reasons for doing so:
  - Child has exceeded allocated resources
  - Task assigned to child is no longer required
  - The parent is exiting, and the operating systems does not allow a child to continue if its parent terminates

Process Termination

- Some operating systems do not allow child to exists if its parent has terminated. If a process terminates, then all its children must also be terminated.
  - **cascading termination.** All children, grandchildren, etc., are terminated.
  - The termination is initiated by the operating system.
- The parent process may wait for termination of a child process by using the **`wait()`** system call. The call returns status information and the pid of the terminated process

```
pid = wait(&status);
```

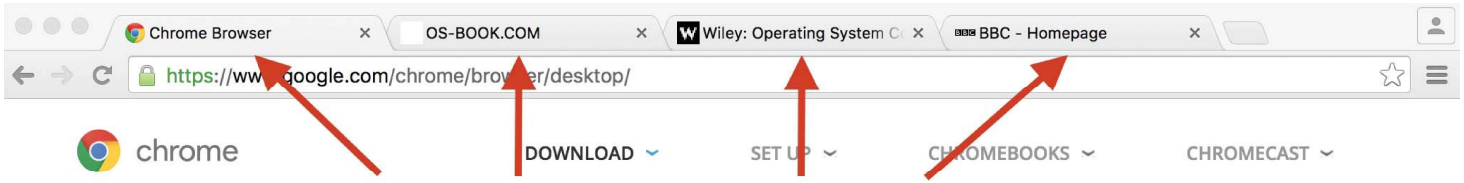
- If no parent waiting (did not invoke **`wait()`**) process is a **zombie**
- If parent terminated without invoking **`wait()`**, process is an **orphan**

Android Process Importance Hierarchy

- Mobile operating systems often have to terminate processes to reclaim system resources such as memory. From **most** to **least** important:
  - Foreground process
  - Visible process
  - Service process
  - Background process
  - Empty process
- Android will begin terminating processes that are least important.

Multiprocess Architecture – Chrome Browser

- Many web browsers ran as single process (some still do)
  - If one web site causes trouble, entire browser can hang or crash
- Google Chrome Browser is multiprocess with 3 different types of processes:
  - **Browser** process manages user interface, disk and network I/O
  - **Renderer** process renders web pages, deals with HTML, Javascript. A new renderer created for each website opened
    - Runs in **sandbox** restricting disk and network I/O, minimizing effect of security exploits
  - **Plug-in** process for each type of plug-in



Each tab represents a separate process.

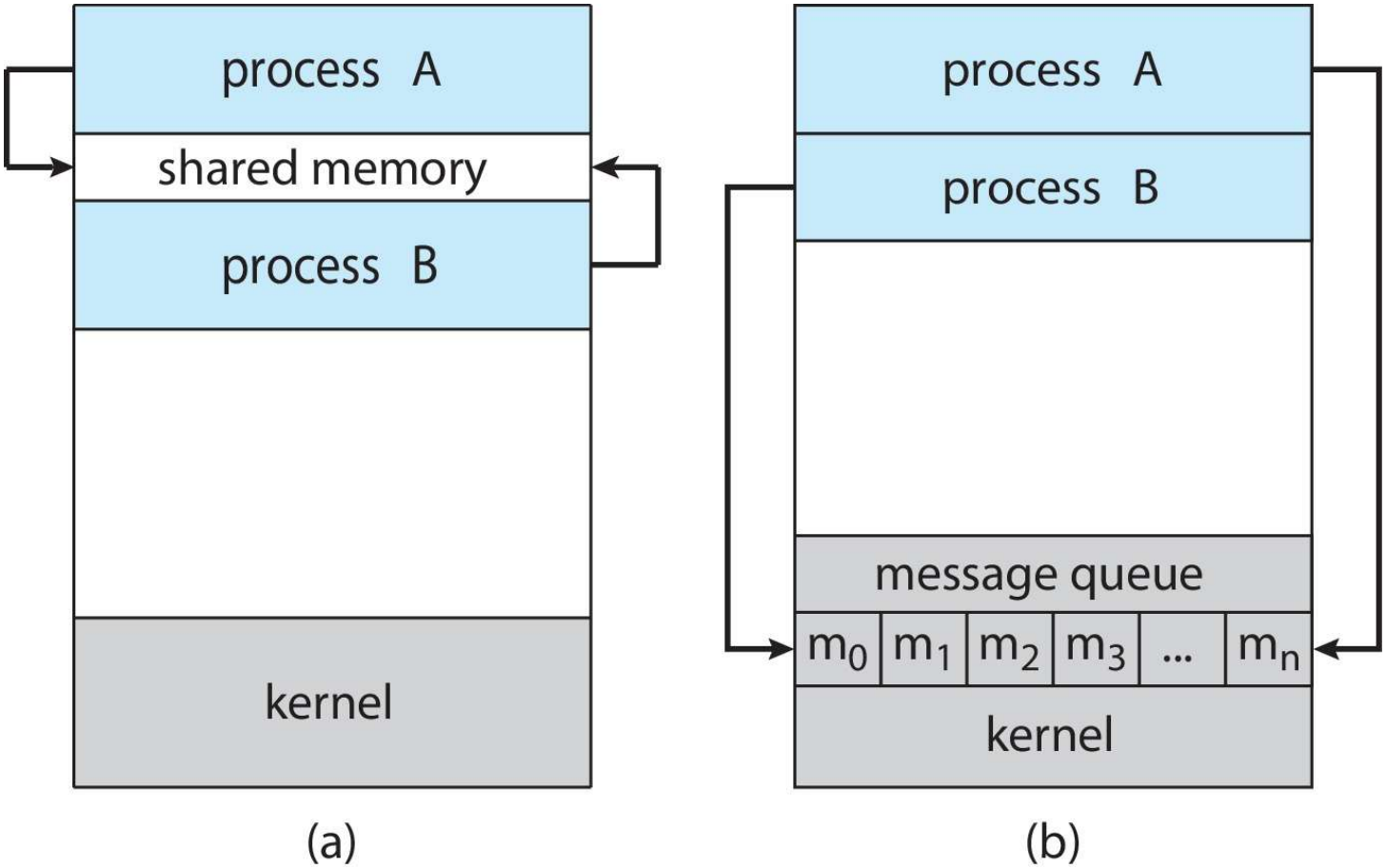
Interprocess Communication

- Processes within a system may be ***independent*** or ***cooperating***
- Cooperating process can affect or be affected by other processes, including sharing data
- Reasons for cooperating processes:
  - Information sharing
  - Computation speedup
  - Modularity
  - Convenience
- Cooperating processes need **interprocess communication** (**IPC**)
- Two models of IPC
  - **Shared memory**
  - **Message passing**

Communications Models

(a) Shared memory.

(b) Message passing.



Producer-Consumer Problem

- Paradigm for cooperating processes:
  - *producer* process produces information that is consumed by a *consumer* process
- Two variations:
  - **unbounded-buffer** places no practical limit on the size of the buffer:
    - Producer never waits
    - Consumer waits if there is no buffer to consume
  - **bounded-buffer** assumes that there is a fixed buffer size
    - Producer must wait if all buffers are full
    - Consumer waits if there is no buffer to consume

IPC – Shared Memory

- An area of memory shared among the processes that wish to communicate
- The communication is under the control of the users processes not the operating system.
- Major issues is to provide mechanism that will allow the user processes to synchronize their actions when they access shared memory.
- Synchronization is discussed in great details in Chapters 6 & 7.

Bounded-Buffer – Shared-Memory Solution

- Shared data

```
#define BUFFER_SIZE 10
typedef struct {
   . . .
} item;

item buffer[BUFFER_SIZE];
int in = 0;
int out = 0;
```

- Solution is correct, but can only use **BUFFER_SIZE-1** elements

Producer Process – Shared Memory

```
item next_produced;

while (true) {
   /* produce an item in next produced */
   while (((in + 1) % BUFFER_SIZE) == out)
        ; /* do nothing */
   buffer[in] = next_produced;
   in = (in + 1) % BUFFER_SIZE;
}
```

Consumer Process – Shared Memory

```
item next_consumed;

while (true) {
        while (in == out)
                ; /* do nothing */
        next_consumed = buffer[out];
        out = (out + 1) % BUFFER_SIZE;

        /* consume the item in next consumed */
}
```

What about Filling all the Buffers?

- Suppose that we wanted to provide a solution to the consumer-producer problem that fills **all** the buffers.
- We can do so by having an integer **`counter`** that keeps track of the number of full buffers.
- Initially, **`counter`** is set to 0.
- The integer **`counter`** is incremented by the producer after it produces a new buffer.
- The integer **`counter`** is and is decremented by the consumer after it consumes a buffer.

Producer

```
while (true) {
        /* produce an item in next produced */

        while (counter == BUFFER_SIZE)
                ; /* do nothing */
        buffer[in] = next_produced;
        in = (in + 1) % BUFFER_SIZE;
        counter++;
}
```

Consumer

```
while (true) {
        while (counter == 0)
                ; /* do nothing */
        next_consumed = buffer[out];
        out = (out + 1) % BUFFER_SIZE;
         counter--;
        /* consume the item in next consumed */
}
```

Race Condition

- **`counter++`** could be implemented as

```
register1 = counter
register1 = register1 + 1
counter = register1
```

- **`counter--`** could be implemented as

```
register2 = counter
register2 = register2 - 1
counter = register2
```

- Consider this execution interleaving with "count = 5" initially:

S0: producer execute `register1 = counter`	{register1 = 5}
S1: producer execute `register1 = register1 + 1`	{register1 = 6}
S2: consumer execute `register2 = counter`	{register2 = 5}
S3: consumer execute `register2 = register2 - 1`	{register2 = 4}
S4: producer execute `counter = register1`	{counter = 6 }
S5: consumer execute `counter = register2`	{counter = 4}

Race Condition (Cont.)

- Question – why was there no race condition in the first solution (where at most N – 1) buffers can be filled?
- More in Chapter 6.

IPC – Message Passing

- Processes communicate with each other without resorting to shared variables
- IPC facility provides two operations:
  - **`send`**(*message*)
  - **`receive`**(*message*)
- The *message* size is either fixed or variable

Message Passing (Cont.)

- If processes *P* and *Q* wish to communicate, they need to:
  - Establish a ***communication link*** between them
  - Exchange messages via send/receive
- Implementation issues:
  - How are links established?
  - Can a link be associated with more than two processes?
  - How many links can there be between every pair of communicating processes?
  - What is the capacity of a link?
  - Is the size of a message that the link can accommodate fixed or variable?
  - Is a link unidirectional or bi-directional?

Implementation of Communication Link

- Physical:
  - Shared memory
  - Hardware bus
  - Network
- Logical:
  - Direct or indirect
  - Synchronous or asynchronous
  - Automatic or explicit buffering

Direct Communication

- Processes must name each other explicitly:
  - **`send`** (*P, message*) – send a message to process P
  - **`receive`**(*Q, message*) – receive a message from process Q
- Properties of communication link
  - Links are established automatically
  - A link is associated with exactly one pair of communicating processes
  - Between each pair there exists exactly one link
  - The link may be unidirectional, but is usually bi-directional

Indirect Communication

- Messages are directed and received from mailboxes (also referred to as ports)
  - Each mailbox has a unique id
  - Processes can communicate only if they share a mailbox
- Properties of communication link
  - Link established only if processes share a common mailbox
  - A link may be associated with many processes
  - Each pair of processes may share several communication links
  - Link may be unidirectional or bi-directional

Indirect Communication (Cont.)

- Operations
  - Create a new mailbox (port)
  - Send and receive messages through mailbox
  - Delete a mailbox
- Primitives are defined as:
  - **`send`**(*A, message*) – send a message to mailbox A
  - **`receive`**(*A, message*) – receive a message from mailbox A

Indirect Communication (Cont.)

- Mailbox sharing
  - P_1, P_2, and P_3 share mailbox A
  - P_1, sends; P_2 and P_3 receive
  - Who gets the message?
- Solutions
  - Allow a link to be associated with at most two processes
  - Allow only one process at a time to execute a receive operation
  - Allow the system to select arbitrarily the receiver. Sender is notified who the receiver was.

Synchronization

Message passing may be either blocking or non-blocking

- **Blocking** is considered **synchronous**
  - **Blocking send** -- the sender is blocked until the message is received
  - **Blocking receive** -- the receiver is blocked until a message is available
- **Non-blocking** is considered **asynchronous**
  - **Non-blocking send** -- the sender sends the message and continue
  - **Non-blocking receive** -- the receiver receives:
    - A valid message, or
    - Null message
- Different combinations possible
  - If both send and receive are blocking, we have a **rendezvous**

Producer-Consumer: Message Passing

- Producer

```
message next_produced;
 while (true) {
  /* produce an item in next_produced */

  send(next_produced);
 }
```

- Consumer

```
 message next_consumed;
 while (true) {
   receive(next_consumed)

  /* consume the item in next_consumed */
}
```

Buffering

- Queue of messages attached to the link.
- Implemented in one of three ways
  1. Zero capacity – no messages are queued on a link.
     Sender must wait for receiver (rendezvous)
  2. Bounded capacity – finite length of *n* messages
     Sender must wait if link full
  3. Unbounded capacity – infinite length
     Sender never waits

Examples of IPC Systems - POSIX

- POSIX Shared Memory
  - Process first creates shared memory segment
    `shm_fd = shm_open(name, O CREAT | O RDWR, 0666);`
  - Also used to open an existing segment
  - Set the size of the object

    `ftruncate(shm_fd, 4096);`
  - Use **`mmap()`** to memory-map a file pointer to the shared memory object
  - Reading and writing to shared memory is done by using the pointer returned by **`mmap()`**.

IPC POSIX Producer

```
#include <stdio.h>
#include <stdlib.h>
#include <string.h>
#include <fcntl.h>
#include <sys/shm.h>
#include <sys/stat.h>

int main()
{
/* the size (in bytes) of shared memory object */
const int SIZE = 4096;
/* name of the shared memory object */
const char *name = "OS";
/* strings written to shared memory */
const char *message_0 = "Hello";
const char *message_1 = "World!";

/* shared memory file descriptor */
int shm_fd;
/* pointer to shared memory obect */
void *ptr;

   /* create the shared memory object */
   shm_fd = shm_open(name, O_CREAT | O_RDWR, 0666);

   /* configure the size of the shared memory object */
   ftruncate(shm_fd, SIZE);

   /* memory map the shared memory object */
   ptr = mmap(0, SIZE, PROT_WRITE, MAP_SHARED, shm_fd, 0);

   /* write to the shared memory object */
   sprintf(ptr,"%s",message_0);
   ptr += strlen(message_0);
   sprintf(ptr,"%s",message_1);
   ptr += strlen(message_1);

   return 0;
}
```

IPC POSIX Consumer

```
#include <stdio.h>
#include <stdlib.h>
#include <fcntl.h>
#include <sys/shm.h>
#include <sys/stat.h>

int main()
{
/* the size (in bytes) of shared memory object */
const int SIZE = 4096;
/* name of the shared memory object */
const char *name = "OS";
/* shared memory file descriptor */
int shm_fd;
/* pointer to shared memory obect */
void *ptr;

   /* open the shared memory object */
   shm_fd = shm_open(name, O_RDONLY, 0666);

   /* memory map the shared memory object */
   ptr = mmap(0, SIZE, PROT_READ, MAP_SHARED, shm_fd, 0);

   /* read from the shared memory object */
   printf("%s",(char *)ptr);

   /* remove the shared memory object */
   shm_unlink(name);

   return 0;
}
```

Examples of IPC Systems – Windows

- Message-passing centric via **advanced local procedure call (LPC)** facility
  - Only works between processes on the same system
  - Uses ports (like mailboxes) to establish and maintain communication channels
  - Communication works as follows:
    - The client opens a handle to the subsystem's **connection port** object.
    - The client sends a connection request.
    - The server creates two private **communication ports** and returns the handle to one of them to the client.
    - The client and server use the corresponding port handle to send messages or callbacks and to listen for replies.

Pipes

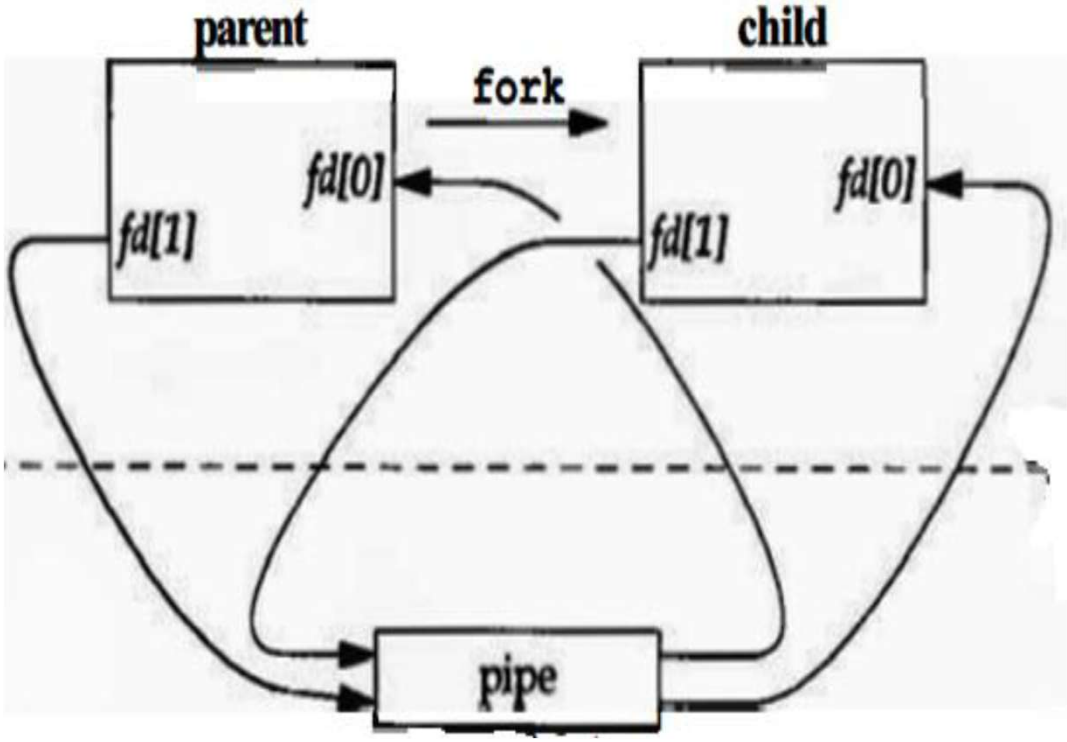
- Acts as a conduit allowing two processes to communicate
- Issues:
  - Is communication unidirectional or bidirectional?
  - In the case of two-way communication, is it half or full-duplex?
  - Must there exist a relationship (i.e., ***parent-child***) between the communicating processes?
  - Can the pipes be used over a network?
- **Ordinary pipes** – cannot be accessed from outside the process that created it. Typically, a parent process creates a pipe and uses it to communicate with a child process that it created.
- **Named pipes** – can be accessed without a parent-child relationship.

Buffers are represented by pipes

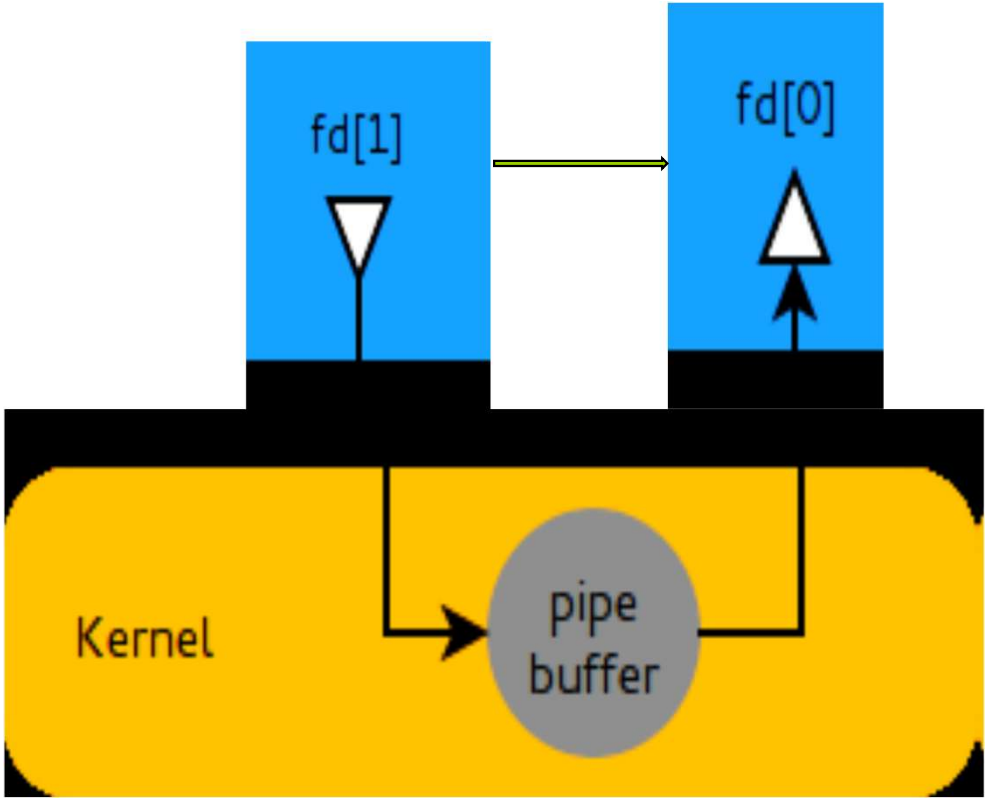
- Buffers are represented by pipes, created by pipe() system call
- Pipe are maintained by the operating system, for IPC
- Pipes are created by the processes when needed, closed when finished with them.
- A pipe is created by system call pipe()
- A chaotic situation arise if some protocol is not agreed between the communicating process over the pipes.

pipe() system call

- A pipe has two ends, available to the process, input output
- Following figure shows a case, where a process created a **pipe,** then a **child**, then communicate over the pipe.
- Each end is represented by a file descriptor.



pipe() creates a kernel level buffer



A full C Program on Pipe() system call

```
*************************************************************************
 Excerpt from "Linux Programmer's Guide - Chapter 6"

 *************************************************************************
 MODULE: pipe.c
 *************************************************************************/

#include <stdio.h>
#include <unistd.h>
#include <sys/types.h>

int main(void)
{
        int     fd[2], nbytes;
        pid_t   childpid;
        char    string[] = "Hello, world!\n";
        char    readbuffer[80];

        pipe(fd);

        if((childpid = fork()) == -1)
        {
                perror("fork");
                exit(1);
        }

        if(childpid == 0)
        {
                /* Child process closes up input side of pipe */
                close(fd[0]);

                /* Send "string" through the output side of pipe */
                write(fd[1], string, (strlen(string)+1));
                exit(0);
        }
        else
        {
                /* Parent process closes up output side of pipe */
                close(fd[1]);

                /* Read in a string from the pipe */
                nbytes = read(fd[0], readbuffer, sizeof(readbuffer));
                printf("Received string: %s", readbuffer);
        }

        return(0);
}
```

Redirection of file descriptors by dup()

- **Redirection** of an **input** or an **output** descriptor is done by **overwriting** it with a new file descriptor;
- Practical Example:
  - redirection of **stdout** to the pipe's output descriptor, or
  - redirection of **stdin** to the pipe's input descriptor.

dup() system call

- dup() system call, duplicates the file descriptors, such that two descriptors will have the same affect.
- The dup() system call gets the lowest-number unused file descriptor.
- Thus, dup() can be used to redirect standard I/O (STDOUT, STDIN) or any other descriptor.
- The descriptors to be reassigned need to be closed first, before being used in dup().

dup() system call example

- Each process by default has access to 3 preset file descriptors:
  - Standard Input : 0
  - Standard Output : 1
  - Standard Error : 2

```
…
close(0); // close standard input
dup(pfd[0]); // reassign it to input end of pipe
…
```

dup2()

- **Dup2() function is also** defined in the **<unistd.h>** header file.
- It uses the new file descriptor provided by the user, for redirection
- Format:

  int dup2 (source fd, target fd)

  the call returns **–1** on error
- Example:

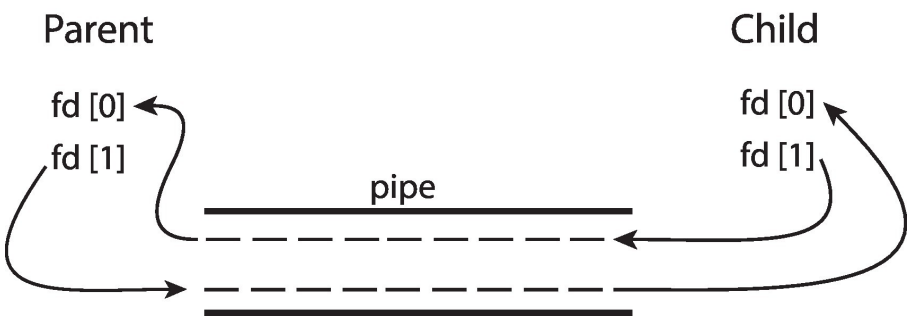
```
if ( dup2 ( fd[1], stdout ) < 0)
        perror ("redirection err");
```

- The effect of the above is the same with the following:

```
close(1);
if ( dup ( fd[1]) < 0)
        perror ("redirection err");
```

Ordinary Pipes

- Ordinary Pipes allow communication in standard producer-consumer style
- Producer writes to one end (the **write-end** of the pipe)
- Consumer reads from the other end (the **read-end** of the pipe)
- Ordinary pipes are therefore unidirectional
- Require parent-child relationship between communicating processes

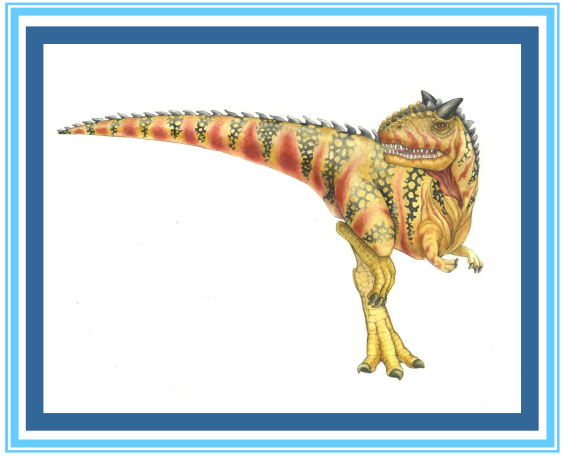


- Windows calls these **anonymous pipes**

Named Pipes

- Named Pipes are more powerful than ordinary pipes
- Communication is bidirectional
- No parent-child relationship is necessary between the communicating processes
- Several processes can use the named pipe for communication
- Provided on both UNIX and Windows systems

End of Chapter 3



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